

Literature review describing the role of media in policy.

1 Role of media in policy

Emiliano and co-authors have debated the role of media in shaping public policy, particularly how media narratives influence public opinion and create political pressures that affect legislative decision-making (Grossman, 2022). Through their findings, they emphasize that one central pathway runs through agenda setting and the ways issues are framed for specific policies, such that media attention and narrative emphasis help determine which problems become politically urgent and how they are understood by elites and citizens. This perspective builds on classic agenda-setting theory, which argues that mass media do not simply mirror public concerns, but actively structure the public agenda by allocating scarce attention across competing issues (McCombs and Shaw, 1972). When news organizations repeatedly highlight certain topics such as crime, inflation, or environmental crises, those topics become more salient in citizens' minds, shaping perceptions of what government should prioritize and, in turn, creating incentives for legislators to defend or oppose particular policy responses. Consistent with this view, studies show that sustained media coverage can elevate specific policy issues onto the political agenda, influence the salience of attitudes toward those issues, and thereby condition the space within which policy debates unfold (McCombs and Shaw, 1972; McCombs, 2014).

Importantly, this claim is not merely theoretical. In their study, (McCombs and Shaw, 1972) operationalized agenda setting using Pearson correlation empirically by comparing the frequency of issue coverage during the 1968 U.S. presidential election with survey responses identifying the "most important problem" facing the country. They found a strong correlation between media issue salience and public issue importance, suggesting

that media attention shapes what citizens think about rather than what they think. Following research has replicated and extended these findings across policy domains and political contexts (McCombs and Valenzuela, 2020; Weaver, 2007). However, later studies demonstrate that agenda-setting effects are conditional rather than universal.

Effects tend to be stronger for less noticeable or complex issues, where citizens lack direct personal experience (Wanta and Ghanem, 2007), and may weaken in fragmented media environments characterized by selective exposure (Bennett and Iyengar, 2008). Time-series analyses further suggest that the relationship between media and public salience may be bidirectional, with public concern sometimes driving media coverage rather than the reverse (Soroka, 2002). Together, this body of work indicates that while agenda-setting effects are well supported, their magnitude varies across issue domains, media systems, and audience characteristics. Yet influencing issue salience represents only one dimension of media power. Media coverage may not only determine which issues receive attention but also shape how those issues are evaluated and interpreted. Accordingly, agenda setting is only one of several mechanisms through which media may shape policy-relevant attitudes and behavior (Scheufele and Tewksbury, 2007).

Beyond agenda setting, Scheufele and Tewksbury highlight framing and priming as two other alternative mechanisms through which news coverage can affect policy outcomes (Scheufele and Tewksbury, 2007). Therefore, it is instructive to examine how these models operate in relation to one another while also addressing where they diverge analytically, as Weaver acknowledges their close ties yet insists they capture distinct media effects (Weaver, 2007). While agenda

setting, framing, and priming are often discussed as closely related media effects, the boundaries between them remain theoretically contested. If agenda setting explains what issues people think about, and framing explains how those issues are presented and interpreted, where does priming fit conceptually, and does it operate as a distinct mechanism or as a downstream consequence of the other two? As noted by Iyengar and Kinder (Schudson, 1988), priming effects were originally investigated in connection with agenda setting, grounded in the idea that repeated media attention to certain issues increases their accessibility in memory and, in turn, influences the criteria citizens use to evaluate political actors and policies. Building on this logic, according to their theory of priming, Krosnick and Kinder (Krosnick and Kinder, 1990a) argue that the more attention the media gives to a particular issue domain, the more citizens are primed to incorporate what they know about that domain into their overall political judgments, such as evaluations of presidential performance. Although this formulation suggests that priming operates through issue salience, it extends agenda setting by shifting focus from attention to evaluative weighting.

Where agenda-setting research examines which issues become salient, framing studies ask how alternative descriptions of the same issue change interpretations and evaluations. Iyengar's experiments on episodic versus thematic television news demonstrate that different frames of social problems shift whether citizens attribute responsibility to individuals or society (Iyengar, 1994a), extending psychological work on gain-loss framing in decision-making (Tversky and Kahneman, 1981). Subsequent experiments show that news stories highlighting different core values—such as public order versus free speech—alter tolerance for controversial groups (Nelson et al., 1997), and that framing effects are strongest when the frame comes from a credible source (Druckman, 2001). At the same time, more recent reviews emphasize that framing is highly conditional: effects weaken when competing frames are present, when individuals hold strong prior attitudes, or as time passes without reinforcement (Chong and Druckman, 2007) (Lecheler and De Vreese, 2011). Framing, therefore, is best understood not as a uniform media effect but as a context-dependent

mechanism operating under specific informational and audience conditions.

This conceptual account raises a methodological challenge similar to that posed by priming: how can framing be empirically identified as a distinct mechanism rather than a byproduct of issue salience? To address this, framing research typically holds issue content constant while varying the interpretive package attached to it and then measuring shifts in attribution, values, or policy preferences. In Iyengar's episodic-thematic experiments, participants learn about the same social problem, but the narrative emphasis differs, either highlighting individual misfortune or structural conditions, and the outcome measure assesses whether responsibility is attributed to personal failings or government institutions (Iyengar, 1994a). Likewise, Nelson, Clawson, and Oxley (1997) (Nelson et al., 1997) construct functionally equivalent stories about a Ku Klux Klan rally that foreground either public order or free speech, then estimate whether tolerance for civil liberties shifts across frame conditions. In both cases, framing effects are identified by comparing mean responses or regression coefficients across treatment groups, demonstrating that changes in wording and emphasis, rather than shifts in issue salience alone, drive differences in interpretation.

Building on this foundation, Weaver (Weaver, 2007) questions whether priming should be treated as an independent media effect or instead as the cumulative result of sustained agenda setting and framing over time.

Price and Tewksbury similarly argue that although agenda setting, priming, and framing all operate through processes of accessibility and salience in memory, they differ in cognitive focus: agenda setting alters perceptions of issue importance, priming shifts the standards by which political actors and policies are evaluated, and framing shapes how individuals interpret and organize information (Price and Tewksbury, 1997). This distinction clarifies the theoretical boundaries between the three mechanisms, but it also invites empirical scrutiny of whether priming functions as a distinct and observable process.

Empirically, priming research examines whether

shifts in media attention alter the criteria citizens use in political judgment. Classic work by Krosnick and Kinder demonstrates that as television news increased coverage of domains such as defense or the economy, those domains became more heavily weighted in evaluations of presidential performance (Krosnick and Kinder, 1990a). Early experimental studies reported similar findings, showing that exposure to issue emphasized newscasts increased the degree to which those issues shaped leader evaluations (Iyengar and Kinder, 2024). Yet more recent evidence suggests that priming is conditional rather than automatic. A preregistered replication under contemporary media conditions finds no average priming effect (Kobayashi et al., 2017), and a meta-analysis concludes that priming is strongest in political news contexts and among less knowledgeable audiences, weakening when individuals are exposed to diverse media environments (Kim et al., 2018). Taken together, these findings indicate that priming is a genuine but fragile mechanism, dependent on sustained issue emphasis and particular audience requirements.

These debates return to Cohen's classic observation that while the media may not be successful in telling people what to think, they are remarkably successful in telling people what to think about (Cohen, 2015). If media attention directs issue salience, the remaining question is how that attention translates into evaluative judgment. Price and Tewksbury address this by distinguishing between accessibility, the increased likelihood that certain considerations come to mind following repeated exposure, and applicability, the extent to which specific considerations are perceived as relevant to the evaluation at hand (Price and Tewksbury, 1997). In this framework, agenda setting and priming operate primarily through accessibility by increasing the likelihood that certain issues enter evaluation, whereas framing operates through applicability by shaping which considerations are seen as appropriate or compelling. This cognitive distinction provides a clearer theoretical map of how media attention may ultimately influence political attitudes and policy-relevant judgments.

Importantly, this differentiation implies that the three media effects models are best distin-

guished not only conceptually but also by the data structures and research designs used to study them. Agenda-setting analyses typically link time series of issue frequency in media to measures of issue salience in surveys or political agendas, asking whether fluctuations in coverage predict which problems rise in public or policy attention (McCombs and Shaw, 1972) (Soroka, 2002). Priming studies, by contrast, examine whether exposure to particular issues alters the weights those issues receive in political evaluations, estimating interactions between media emphasis and the impact of issue-specific attitudes on global judgments (Krosnick and Kinder, 1990a) (Kim et al., 2018). Framing research instead holds the underlying problem constant while manipulating or identifying variations in interpretive packages, inferring effects from differences in responsibility attributions, value priorities, or policy support across conditions (Iyengar, 1994a) (Nelson et al., 1997) (Druckman, 2001).

RESPONSE TO – what outcomes, specifically do they model and how do they differ? More importantly, how does that difference enable distinguishing the different elements? Same is true for "appropriately structured data", stating what that means helps guide you in structuring your own data.

Thus, although all three mechanisms involve attention and memory, they are empirically distinguishable when scholars model different outcomes and rely on appropriately structured data. Specifically, agenda-setting examines whether media frequency predicts issue salience using parallel time series of coverage volume and public attention; priming tests whether coverage shifts decision weights in approval models through exposure times ($\times$) issue attitude interactions; and framing compares attribution patterns across experimental conditions using group mean differences (McCombs and Shaw, 1972; Krosnick and Kinder, 1990b; Iyengar, 1991). Agenda-setting is confirmed, for example, when economy coverage jumps from 10% to 35% of news, and public concern rises correspondingly from 25% to 45%, establishing accessibility as the key mechanism (McCombs and Shaw, 1972). Priming occurs when presidential availability

becomes far more dependent on economic performance (economy evaluations explaining 60% of approval variance) after heavy economic coverage, compared to baseline periods (30% variance explained), revealing shifts in decision criteria (Krosnick and Kinder, 1990b). Framing effects exist when thematic coverage leads 65% of respondents to blame government policy for poverty, while episodic coverage leads only 25% to assign that blame, capturing distinct causal interpretations (Iyengar, 1991, 1994b). Each targets a distinct cognitive mechanism through appropriately structured tests: agenda-setting tracks attention levels over time via correlations of time-series data; priming measures interaction effects on decision criteria using regression models with media exposure as a moderator; and framing estimates condition mean differences in causal interpretation through experimental or content-analytic comparisons. This precision in outcome variables (salience, approval weights, attribution patterns) and data structures (time series, interaction models, experimental conditions) not only enables clean separation of the mechanisms but also guides my analysis of ESA debates, where I will track media coverage volume against public salience (agenda-setting), test whether narrative framing increases the weight of a debate concerns in legislative discussions (priming), and compare narrative patterns across news and congressional narratives (framing).

This distinction has important implications for the study of environmental policy debates, such as the Endangered Species Act. Simply counting how often the Act is mentioned would be sufficient for a first-cut agenda-setting analysis, but inadequate to identify priming or framing effects. Detecting priming would require modeling whether increased ESA coverage changes the degree to which economic, ecological, or partisan considerations predict legislators' evaluations or voting behavior. Detecting framing, in turn, would require identifying the problem definitions, causal attributions, and moral evaluations embedded within ESA discourse. The fact that many studies rely on similar textual indicators—such as issue frequency or co-occurrence with evaluative language—helps explain why the boundaries between these mechanisms are often blurred. Yet the most careful research

designs demonstrate that agenda setting, priming, and framing can be empirically distinguished when analysts attend to both the structure of the data and the nature of the outcomes being modeled.

Yet despite careful conceptual distinctions, previous studies often struggle to disentangle agenda setting, priming, and framing in practice. Because these mechanisms operate through overlapping processes of accessibility and applicability, it becomes difficult to determine whether observed changes in opinion reflect shifts in issue salience, evaluative weighting, or interpretive framing. This raises a broader question: if media influence involves multiple interrelated cognitive processes, how can scholars account for the ways these mechanisms interact to shape coherent judgments about policy conflicts? More specifically, is there a framework capable of capturing how media attention, interpretive frames, and evaluative standards are integrated into the stories through which citizens and policymakers make sense of complex policy debates?

One possible approach to addressing this challenge is to shift analytical focus from isolated media effects to the structures through which attention, interpretation, and evaluation are jointly organized. Rather than treating agenda setting, priming, and framing as separable processes, some scholars suggest that media influence may operate through more integrated forms of policy communication that bring these mechanisms together.

RESPONSE to – Comparison of NPF and its justification for its mapping of narrative elements to agenda-setting/priming/framing mechanisms.

From this perspective, policy debates may be shaped not only by which issues receive attention or how they are framed, but by the broader stories through which problems, actors, and solutions are linked in public discourse. This raises the question of whether the Narrative Policy Framework (NPF) offers unique analytical leverage over alternative approaches, and how its core elements can generate testable hypotheses about policy dynamics. The NPF addresses this challenge by shifting analytical focus from isolated

media effects to integrated narrative structures that simultaneously organize attention, interpretation, and evaluation through four structural components: setting (which directs agenda attention), characters (which prime relevant actors), plot (which frames causal relationships), and policy solution (which prescribes normative evaluation) (Jones and McBeth, 2010a,b).

NPF offers distinct advantages over alternative frameworks. While the Multiple Streams Framework captures problem stream attention through policy windows, it neglects character-driven causality central to framing effects (Kingdon, 2011), Policy Feedback Theory traces institutional effects on preferences over time but misses strategic elite storytelling (Pierson, 1993), and standard topic models identify thematic clusters without enforcing narrative coherence (Blei et al., 2003; Roberts et al., 2014). NPF uniquely synthesizes agenda-setting, priming, and framing by mapping its elements directly onto these cognitive mechanisms—setting to issue salience, characters to decision weights, plot to causal interpretation, and solution to evaluation criteria while providing a computationally structured framework for text analysis that enforces narrative logic within observable discourse units (Jones and McBeth, 2010a; Shanahan et al., 2018a).

This line of thinking raises the possibility that narrative-oriented frameworks such as the Narrative Policy Framework (NPF) (Schlaufer et al., 2022) may offer useful conceptual tools for examining how accessibility and applicability interact within policy communication, without presuming that any single media effect operates in isolation.

At the same time, methodological developments further motivate this shift. The evidence in the strength supporting each media-effects model varies considerably across studies. Early agenda-setting and priming research often relied on relatively small samples, correlational designs, or limited experimental manipulations, leaving room for alternative explanations such as reverse causality or projection (Miller, 2007) (Kobayashi et al., 2017). More recent preregistered replications and meta-analyses report more modest and heterogeneous effects, particularly once

audience predispositions, competing information environments, and measurement error are taken into account (Kim et al., 2018). These findings do not invalidate media-effects theories, but they suggest that strong claims about media “telling people what to think about” or reshaping evaluative standards must be situated within broader communicative structures. Together, these empirical and conceptual ambiguities motivate the search for frameworks capable of capturing how attention, interpretation, and evaluation are organized simultaneously over time.

The Narrative Policy Framework (NPF) offers one potential response to this challenge by conceptualizing policy communication as storytelling rather than as isolated media effects (Jones et al., 2014). Within the NPF, policy narratives organize attention, interpretation, and judgment through structured elements such as settings, characters, and causal plots, linking problem definitions to moral or policy conclusions (Shanahan et al., 2018b). This narrative perspective has been strongly demonstrated in Schmidt’s analysis for the study of economic communication where he illustrates the analytical value of the Narrative Policy Framework by combining a backward-looking conception of inflation narratives, showing how the NPF can be used to systematically analyze media narratives as causal explanations of economic outcomes (Schmidt, 2025). In the same way, (Jones and McBeth, 2010a) introduces the Narrative Policy Framework as a quantitative, structuralist, and positivist approach that acknowledges the importance of narratives in policy processes and seeks to enable more systematic and productive empirical debates over how stories influence public policy.

In this sense, the NPF can be read as an attempt to reconcile and extend classic media-effects models by treating policy communication as storytelling rather than as discrete shifts in issue salience or isolated frames. Settings, characters, and causal plots specify not only which issues appear on the agenda, but also who is responsible for problems and which evaluative standards should apply, thereby integrating agenda setting, priming, and framing into a single narrative structure (Shanahan et al., 2018b). However, as several reviewers note, most applications of the

NPF have remained largely descriptive, relying on manual coding of a limited set of texts and offering few scalable tools for measuring narrative elements in large corpora (Schlaufer et al., 2022) (Shiller, 2019). This measurement gap is particularly acute when the goal is to trace temporal feedback between media and policymaking venues, where narratives may originate in one arena and diffuse or transform as they move to another.

Despite these conceptual strengths, scholars have increasingly noted that the Narrative Policy Framework has been more successful in being descriptive than as a measurement framework. A similar observation arises in the study of economic narratives, where understanding behavior depends on the stories people tell, yet quantitative approaches to analyze these narratives remain largely underdeveloped (Shiller, 2019). One of the major challenges identified by Elliot is the difficulty of measuring narratives in written or spoken texts (Ash et al., 2024). In the same line, Sloman notes that such a measure must capture relationships between characters(entities), concepts, organizations, or objects (Sloman and Sloman, 2009). More to this context, traditional text-as-data methods in social science, which often focus on word frequencies or broad topic patterns, fail to account for these relationships, leaving the causal structure of narratives unmeasured (Grimmer and Stewart, 2013) (Gentzkow et al., 2019).

Although recent advances such as RELATIO and subsequent work on economic narratives were developed in macroeconomic contexts, the underlying methodological challenge is analogous in environmental and conservation policy. Central banks and finance ministries care about how public narratives around inflation, growth, and debt shape expectations and behavior; similarly, legislators and agencies involved in ESA implementation must navigate narratives that link species protection to jobs, property rights, or regional identities (Ash et al., 2024) (Schmidt et al., 2025). Adapting these tools to wildlife policy, therefore, offers not only a new measurement strategy for NPF-inspired research but also a way to test whether narrative dynamics documented in economic communication, such as rapid shifts, feedback between expert discourse and mass

media, and the emergence of dominant storylines, also characterize conflicts over endangered species. Relatedly, the emerging field of digital conservation text studies uses large-scale digital traces and textual corpora to track public interest and sentiment around biodiversity, sustainability, and conservation issues, and has expanded rapidly over the past decade. Yet this work has so far made only limited use of large language models for capturing how attitudes and narratives about conservation evolve over time, particularly in relation to policy debates and institutional decision-making.

Ash and co-authors addressed the challenge of measuring narratives by offering a way forward with a methodological approach using an open-source python package, RELATIO, used to measure interpretable narratives from plain text documents (Ash et al., 2024). By bridging the gap between conceptual frameworks like the NPF and scalable measurement, such approaches offer a promising path for turning descriptive insights into systematic, empirical analysis. As media narratives evolve rapidly, however, Lange emphasizes that it is increasingly important not only to extract narratives from a given corpus but also to examine how they emerge and shift over time (Lange et al., 2025). Building on this insight, he (Lange et al., 2025) extends the RELATIO pipeline by incorporating additional NLP models of different architectures. While these extensions improve the ability to track narrative dynamics, Schmidt notes that traditional NLP-based approaches still face a fundamental limitation (Schmidt et al., 2025). Specifically, although such models address scalability, they lack the integrated language comprehension required to fully capture the contextual meaning and economic relevance of narratives. To address this gap, Schmidt goes on to propose an integrated approach that leverages large language models (LLMs) such as GPT (Brown et al., 2020) to identify economic narratives directly from large text corpora and possibilities for narrative extraction (Schmidt et al., 2025). This approach is further supported by findings from Shahriar (Shahriar et al., 2024), who demonstrate that LLMs exhibit remarkable proficiency across tasks requiring deep comprehension of language and context, underscoring their potential to capture complex narrative structures that traditional NLP pipelines struggle to extract.

Across the literature I review, agenda setting, priming, and framing emerge as related but not equivalent models of how media shape policy making. Agenda-setting research provides the strongest and most consistent evidence that media influence which issues the public and policymakers see as important, especially for complex problems where people lack direct experience. Those studies show that fluctuations in coverage of topics like crime, inflation, or foreign policy often precede shifts in perceived importance, but they say little about how those issues are understood or why particular policy responses gain traction. Priming work adds an important refinement by arguing that repeated attention to certain domains changes the criteria people use to evaluate leaders or policies, yet more recent replications portray priming as a genuine but fragile mechanism, one that depends heavily on experimental design, audience characteristics, and media context, and is therefore difficult to generalize confidently beyond specific settings.

By contrast, the framing literature, these forms of research suggest that, for contested policy domains like ESA implementation, media's most consequential role is less about simply placing "endangered species" on the agenda or just adjusting evaluation weights, and more about crafting and circulating narratives that define what the ESA problem is, who is to blame, and which solutions count as reasonable. For that reason, and following the trajectory of the literature I review, I treat framing and narrative as the primary lens for understanding media's role in ESA policy making, with agenda setting as a baseline process and priming as a conditional, secondary mechanism.

RESPONSE to – Claim about where ESA fit and connecting it to the Literature review.

While the Endangered Species Act (ESA) is frequently invoked in political debates, we need to explain more clearly why the ESA is theoretically important for studying policy and media effects. Established in 1973, the ESA is widely regarded as one of the most powerful environmental laws in the United States, mandating that federal agencies ensure their actions do not destroy listed species

([esa, 1973](#)). Endangered species policy and the ESA in particular offers a compelling test case for debates about media influence on public opinion and policymaking because it combines high symbolic stakes with low day-to-day visibility for most citizens ([Nie, 2004](#); [Hamilton et al., 2020](#)). National surveys consistently document strong, stable support for the ESA across decades ([Bruskotter et al., 2018](#); [Vucetich et al., 2025](#); [Bruskotter et al., 2023](#)), even as media and political elites frequently portray the Act as controversial, conflict-ridden, and economically burdensome ([Bruskotter and Shelby, 2010](#); [Nie, 2004](#)). This mismatch between broad public backing and highly polarized narratives suggests that endangered species are not simply another environmental issue, but a domain where media framing may decouple policy debates from underlying mass preferences in distinctive ways ([Boykoff and Boykoff, 2007](#); [Cox and Pezzullo, 2016](#)).

Moreover, the ESA provides a strategically valuable case for engaging the agenda-setting literature. Agenda-setting theory suggests that media influence is strongest for issues that are complex, technical, and outside the realm of direct personal experience ([McCombs and Shaw, 1972](#); [Wanta and Ghanem, 2007](#)). Endangered species policy fits this description: ecological decline is often geographically uneven and scientifically intricate, and most citizens encounter the ESA primarily through mediated narratives rather than firsthand experience. Under these conditions, media framing should exert substantial influence over how the issue is prioritized and interpreted. However, the persistent stability of public support documented by Bruskotter ([Bruskotter et al., 2018](#)) and Vucetich ([Vucetich et al., 2025](#)) complicates this expectation. If media narratives routinely portray the ESA as economically burdensome or politically divisive ([Hamilton et al., 2020](#)), why does mass support remain high? This tension positions the ESA as an empirical test case for competing theoretical explanations: whether media framing primarily shapes public attitudes, whether deeply rooted wildlife value orientations buffer individuals against shifting narratives ([Manfredo et al., 2021, 2017](#)), or whether media effects operate more strongly on elite political agendas than on mass opinion. By situating the ESA within this theoretical debate, the present study

moves beyond abstract claims about agenda setting to examine a policy domain where institutional conflict, media discourse, and enduring public values visibly intersect. Building on this pattern, my project treats ESA debates as a strategic case for evaluating competing claims about whether media primarily reflect public concerns or actively construct the political meaning of policy conflicts (McCombs and Shaw, 1972; McCombs, 2014; Mutz, 2015). If media attention and narrative frames around endangered species systematically diverge from the underlying stability of public support, this would support the view that media can generate perceived controversy and urgency even in the absence of major shifts in mass attitudes (Scheufele, 2013). Conversely, if changes in coverage and framing closely track real shifts in public opinion or legislative behavior, this would lend weight to accounts that emphasize media as a conduit rather than a driver of policy conflict (Hamilton et al., 2020). By bringing together well-documented patterns of ESA support with detailed analysis of media narratives and congressional discourse, the ESA case therefore allows me to speak directly to core questions in the agenda-setting and framing literatures about who leads, who follows, and under what conditions media reshape the terrain on which policy debates unfold.

Building on this literature, these are my revised ideas for the chapters of the dissertation (seeking thoughts on my third research question)

- **How do we extract narratives:** Examine how such narratives are produced and measured, Extract NPF elements: events, causal stories, morals from ESA texts. **Comparison and assessing-** Evaluate LLMs vs traditional methods (topic models), assess which approach yields more framing measures
- **What do these narratives tell us:** Narrative Flows, Trace directionality: who goes first, media or Congress?, Test if news frames precede, follow, or mirror legislative discourse

QUESTIONS or Areas for Your Thoughts – I put headings to paragraphs to these responses for easy identification:

1. **Does the revised ESA case justification provide sufficient background about the Act**

and addressing how it fits in the literature review, addressing your comment?

2. **Does my comparison of NPF vs. alternatives (MSF) sufficiently justify NPF's unique way for its mapping of narrative elements to agenda-setting/priming/framing mechanisms?**
3. **Does my response on the comment about the outcomes of the mechanisms, does it make sense?**
4. **For the revised chapters, I will need some thoughts and guidance about the third research question**

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